Pneumonia Detection from Chest X-ray Images using Deep Learning Model

A Project Work Submitted to Jawaharlal Nehru Technological University Kakinada, Kakinada in the Partial Fulfillment for the award of the degree of

Bachelor of Technology
in
Artificial Intelligence & Machine Learning

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DECLARATION

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Acknowledgements

We thank the almighty for giving us the courage and perseverance in completing the main-project.

We extend our sincere thanks to **Dr. M. VENU GOPAL RAO,** B.E, M.B.A, D.M.M., chairman of our college, for providing sufficient infrastructure and good environment in the college to complete our course.

We are thankful to our secretary **Dr. M. SRIDHAR,** M.Tech. M.B.A., for providing the necessary infrastructure and labs and also permitting to carry out this project.

We are thankful to our principal **Dr. G. V. K. Murthy,** M.Tech., Ph.D., for providing the necessary infrastructure and labs and also permitting to carry out this project.

With extreme jubilance and deepest gratitude, we would like to thank Head of the AI & ML Department, **Dr. Sk. Heena Kauser,** M.Tech., Ph.D., for her constant encouragement.

Our Special thanks to our project coordinator **Dr. Raghunath Reddy,** Assoc. Professor, AI & ML, for his support and valuable suggestions regarding project work.

We are greatly indebted to project guide **Mrs. N. Haritha Patel ,** M.Tech., Assistant Professor, AI & ML, for providing valuable guidance at every stage of this project work. We are profoundly grateful towards the unmatched services rendered by him.

Our special thanks to all the faculty and peers of AI & ML dept. for their valuable advises at every stage of this work. Lastly, we thank our parents for their unwavering moral support and heartfelt cooperation

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Abstract

Pneumonia is a serious respiratory disease affecting millions worldwide and remains a leading cause of mortality, particularly among children under five and the elderly. The disease causes inflammation in the lungs' air sacs, which may fill with fluid, leading to breathing difficulties. Early and accurate detection is crucial for timely intervention and reducing death rates. Chest X-ray imaging is the most widely used diagnostic technique due to its cost-effectiveness, but manual examination by radiologists is time-consuming and subject to human error.

This project proposes an automated Pneumonia detection system using Deep Learning. The system leverages Convolutional Neural Network (CNN) architectures, including ResNet50, MobileNet, and DenseNet through transfer learning, to automatically learn discriminative features from Chest X-ray images and classify them into Pneumonia and Normal categories.

The dataset consists of labeled Chest X-ray images from public repositories. Extensive preprocessing is performed, including resizing, normalization, noise reduction, and data augmentation techniques such as rotation and flipping to improve model generalization. Models are trained using optimized hyperparameters with Binary Cross-Entropy loss and the Adam optimizer.

Performance is evaluated using Accuracy, Precision, Recall, and F1-Score. Experimental results demonstrate that the proposed system achieves high classification accuracy, significantly outperforming conventional machine learning methods. The system shows robustness in detecting pneumonia patterns even in complex radiographic images.

This automated framework can assist radiologists in faster and more reliable decision-making, particularly in resource-constrained environments. It can be extended for real-time clinical deployment and integrated into hospital systems. Overall, this project highlights the transformative potential of Artificial Intelligence in medical imaging, presenting a scalable, efficient solution for automated Pneumonia screening.

List of Abbreviations

Acronym	Abbreviation
Adam	Adaptive Moment Estimation
AI	Artificial Intelligence
ANN	Artificial Neural Network
AUC	Area Under the Curve
CLAHE	Contrast Limited Adaptive Histogram Equalization
CNN	Convolutional Neural Network
DenseNet	Densely Connected Convolutional Network
FN	False Negative
FP	False Positive
FPR	False Positive Rate
GAP	Global Average Pooling
GPU	Graphics Processing Unit
Grad-CAM	Gradient-weighted Class Activation Mapping
ImageNet	Image Database for Visual Recognition
Keras	High-level neural networks API
LR	Learning Rate
MobileNet	Mobile Convolutional Neural Network
PACS	Picture Archiving and Communication System
RAM	Random Access Memory
ReLU	Rectified Linear Unit
ResNet	Residual Network
RGB	Red Green Blue
ROC	Receiver Operating Characteristic
SHAP	SHapley Additive exPlanations
SVM	Support Vector Machine
TensorFlow	Open-source machine learning framework
TN	True Negative
TP	True Positive
TPR	True Positive Rate
VGG	Visual Geometry Group
WHO	World Health Organization

Chapter 1

Introduction

1.1 Overview of Pneumonia

Pneumonia is a serious respiratory infection that primarily affects the lungs, especially the alveoli, which are tiny air sacs responsible for oxygen exchange in the human body [1]. When these air sacs become inflamed and fill with fluid or pus, it causes difficulty in breathing, chest pain, fever, and persistent cough. Pneumonia can be caused by different microorganisms such as bacteria, viruses, and fungi. Common types include bacterial pneumonia, viral pneumonia, and fungal pneumonia, each varying in severity and treatment [2].

The pathophysiological mechanism of pneumonia involves the immune system's response to pathogens invading the lower respiratory tract. When microorganisms breach the body's natural defense mechanisms, they multiply rapidly within the alveolar spaces, triggering an inflammatory cascade. This inflammation leads to the accumulation of immune cells and fluid in the alveoli, preventing proper oxygen exchange and producing the characteristic symptoms of the disease [1].

Globally, pneumonia remains one of the leading causes of morbidity and mortality, particularly among children under five years of age, elderly individuals, and immunocompromised patients. According to the World Health Organization (WHO), pneumonia accounts for approximately 15% of all deaths of children under five, making it a critical public health concern [3]. Early detection and timely intervention are essential to prevent complications such as respiratory failure, sepsis, and permanent lung damage [2].

Symptoms of pneumonia include:

- Fever and chills
- Persistent cough producing phlegm

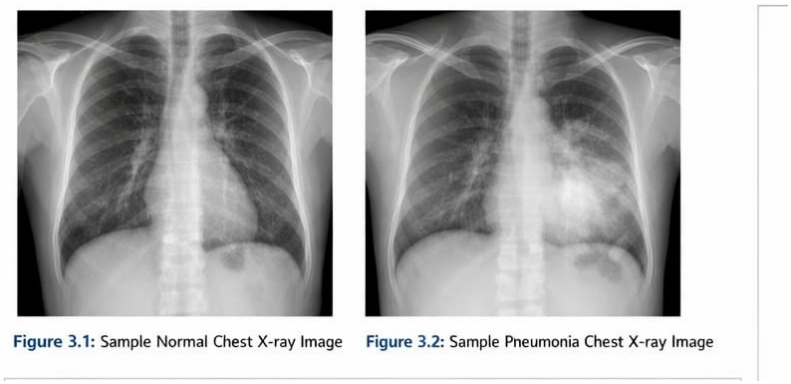

Figure 1.1: Comparison of Normal and Pneumonia Chest X-ray Images

- Shortness of breath
- Chest pain while breathing or coughing
- Fatigue and weakness

1.1.1 High-Risk Groups

Certain populations are more susceptible to pneumonia:

- Infants and young children with developing immune systems [3]
- Elderly individuals above 65 years with age-related immune decline
- Patients with chronic illnesses (e.g., diabetes, heart disease, COPD)
- Individuals with weakened immune systems (chemotherapy, HIV, transplant recipients)
- Smokers and those exposed to indoor air pollution

1.1.2 Global Impact

Pneumonia is responsible for millions of hospitalizations every year. Developing countries are disproportionately affected due to limited healthcare access and shortage of trained medical professionals [1]. The economic burden includes hospital costs, loss of productivity, and long-term care for severe cases. In 2019 alone, pneumonia claimed the lives of more than 800,000 children under five, highlighting the urgent need for improved diagnostic and treatment approaches [3].

1.2 Background of the Study

Medical imaging is a cornerstone of modern healthcare, aiding in the diagnosis of various diseases. Among imaging modalities, chest X-ray is widely preferred for detecting lung infections due to its accessibility, speed, and cost-effectiveness [2]. Radiologists analyze X-ray images to detect abnormalities such as opacities, fluid accumulation, and tissue inflammation, which are indicative of pneumonia [1].

1.2.1 Role of Chest X-ray in Diagnosis

Chest X-ray remains the primary imaging tool for pneumonia evaluation due to several advantages:

- **Accessibility:** X-ray machines are available in most healthcare facilities [2]
- **Speed:** Image acquisition takes only seconds, enabling rapid diagnosis
- **Cost-effectiveness:** Affordable compared to CT or MRI
- **Diagnostic utility:** Can detect characteristic findings like consolidation and infiltrates [1]

1.2.2 Challenges in Manual Diagnosis

Traditional diagnosis relies entirely on expert radiologists, which presents several challenges:

- Manual interpretation can be time-consuming, especially in high-volume settings [2]
- Radiologist fatigue may lead to decreased accuracy and missed findings
- Rural and underdeveloped regions often lack skilled radiologists [1]
- Inter-observer variability exists even among experienced readers [2]
- Subtle or early-stage pneumonia findings may be overlooked

1.2.3 Role of Artificial Intelligence

Artificial Intelligence (AI), particularly deep learning, has transformed medical image analysis. Convolutional Neural Networks (CNNs) automatically learn hierarchical features from images without manual intervention [1]. By training on large datasets of chest X-ray images, deep learning models can classify images into two categories: **Normal** and **Pneumonia** [2]. Such automated systems assist doctors by providing fast and reliable predictions, reducing diagnostic workload, and enabling timely treatment [1].

1.3 Problem Statement

Despite the prevalence of chest X-rays, manual diagnosis faces several challenges:

- Diagnostic errors due to human fatigue or limited expertise [2]
- Delays in reporting in hospitals with high patient loads
- Inconsistent detection of early-stage or subtle infections [1]
- Lack of radiologists in rural and underdeveloped areas [2]
- Increasing healthcare demand requires automated solutions to support clinical workflows [1]

Hence, there is a pressing need for an automated, accurate, and reliable system to detect pneumonia efficiently from chest X-ray images [2].

1.4 Objectives of the Study

The primary objectives of this project are:

- To develop a CNN-based model for automated pneumonia detection using chest X-ray images [1]
- To preprocess and augment the dataset to enhance model training and generalization [2]

- To compare the performance of different CNN architectures, including custom CNN, ResNet50, DenseNet121, and MobileNet [1]
- To evaluate the model using comprehensive metrics such as accuracy, precision, recall, F1-score, and ROC-AUC [2]
- To analyze misclassified cases and visualize feature maps for model interpretability [1]
- To implement data augmentation techniques to address class imbalance and improve model robustness [2]

1.5 Significance of the Study

Automated pneumonia detection can provide multiple benefits:

- **Clinical assistance:** Assist radiologists in making faster and more accurate diagnoses [1]
- **Workload reduction:** Reduce the workload in healthcare facilities by pre-screening normal cases [2]
- **Early detection:** Improve early detection rates, especially in low-resource areas [1]
- **Second opinion:** Serve as a reliable second opinion tool to reduce diagnostic errors [2]
- **Foundation:** Serve as a foundation for AI-based diagnostic tools for other lung diseases [1]

1.6 Scope of the Study

This study focuses on:

- Pneumonia detection using publicly available pediatric chest X-ray datasets [2]
- Binary classification of chest X-ray images into Normal or Pneumonia categories [1]

- Use of CNN-based deep learning models for automated feature extraction and classification [2]
- Evaluation of different CNN architectures to identify the most effective and efficient model [1]
- Analysis of model performance through quantitative metrics and qualitative visualization [2]

1.7 Research Questions

The study addresses the following research questions:

- Can deep learning models accurately detect pneumonia from chest X-ray images with high reliability? [1]
- Which CNN architecture provides the best balance of accuracy and computational efficiency? [2]
- How can data augmentation techniques improve the model's performance and generalization capability? [1]
- What radiographic features do CNNs learn to identify pneumonia? [2]
- How does the proposed model compare with standard pre-trained architectures? [1]

Chapter 2

Literature Review

2.1 Introduction

Automated detection of Pneumonia using medical imaging has gained significant attention in recent years. Manual interpretation of Chest X-ray images is time-consuming and prone to errors, especially in resource-limited settings [1]. Deep Learning, particularly Convolutional Neural Networks (CNNs), offers a promising solution by automating feature extraction and classification [2]. This chapter provides a comprehensive review of existing literature on pneumonia detection methods.

2.1.1 Need for Literature Review

Understanding previous work is essential to identify successful approaches, recognize limitations, and justify the selection of CNN-based methods for this study [1]. This chapter summarizes and compares traditional, machine learning, and deep learning approaches for pneumonia detection [2].

2.2 Traditional Methods for Pneumonia Detection

Traditional Pneumonia diagnosis relies on clinical evaluation and radiological imaging, forming the foundation upon which automated methods are built [3].

2.2.1 Clinical Diagnosis

Physicians assess patients through history taking and physical examination [4]. Key symptoms evaluated include:

- Fever and chills (typically high-grade, >101°F)
- Persistent cough (initially dry, becoming productive)
- Shortness of breath (dyspnea on exertion or at rest)
- Chest pain (often pleuritic, worsening with deep breathing)
- Fatigue and weakness (systemic effects of infection)
- Crackles or wheezing on auscultation

Laboratory Tests

Supporting laboratory investigations include [5]:

- Complete Blood Count (CBC): Elevated white blood cell count indicates infection
- Blood culture: Identifies specific bacterial pathogens in bloodstream
- Sputum analysis: Microscopy and culture to identify causative organisms
- C-reactive protein (CRP) and procalcitonin: Inflammatory markers
- Pulse oximetry: Measures blood oxygen saturation

2.2.2 Radiological Imaging

Chest X-rays remain the primary diagnostic tool for confirming pneumonia [1]. Radiologists systematically analyze images for characteristic findings [2]:

- Lung opacities: Areas of increased density indicating consolidation
- Consolidations: Homogeneous opacification of lung parenchyma
- Air bronchograms: Air-filled bronchi visible within consolidated lung
- Interstitial patterns: Reticular or nodular patterns in lung interstitium
- Pleural effusions: Fluid accumulation in pleural space
- Cavitation: Necrotic areas within consolidated tissue

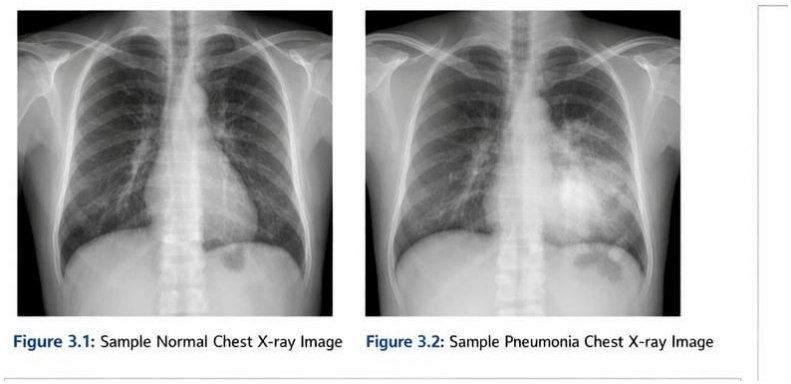

Figure 2.1: Comparison of Normal and Pneumonia Chest X-ray Images

2.2.3 Limitations of Traditional Methods

Despite their established role, traditional methods have significant limitations [1]:

- Subjective interpretation leads to inter-observer variability [2]
- Time-consuming, requiring skilled radiologists for each reading
- Low sensitivity for early-stage or mild Pneumonia [1]
- Limited accessibility in remote and underserved areas [2]
- Cannot provide quantitative or standardized assessments
- Fatigue-related errors in high-volume settings

Table 2.1: Traditional Pneumonia Diagnostic Methods

Method	**Purpose**	**Limitations**
CBC Test	Detect infection	Low specificity, non-specific
Blood Culture	Identify bacteria	Time-consuming (24-48 hours)
Chest X-ray	Detect lung opacities	Requires expert interpretation
Sputum Analysis	Pathogen identification	Contamination risk

2.3 Machine Learning Approaches

Machine learning algorithms automate pneumonia detection by learning patterns from features extracted from X-ray images, representing an intermediate step between manual interpretation and deep learning [4].

2.3.1 Supervised Learning Algorithms

Various classification algorithms have been applied to pneumonia detection [5]:

- **Logistic Regression:** Simple linear classifier for binary outcomes
- **Random Forest:** Ensemble of decision trees handling non-linear relationships
- **Support Vector Machines (SVM):** Finds optimal hyperplane for class separation
- **K-Nearest Neighbors (KNN):** Classifies based on similarity to training examples
- **Naive Bayes:** Probabilistic classifier based on Bayes theorem

2.3.2 Feature Extraction Techniques

Machine learning requires handcrafted features extracted from images [2]:

- **Texture features:** Gabor filters, Local Binary Patterns (LBP), Haralick features
- **Shape features:** Edge detection, contour analysis, geometric properties
- **Intensity features:** Pixel intensity histograms, statistical moments
- **Scale-Invariant Feature Transform (SIFT):** Keypoint detection and description
- **Histogram of Oriented Gradients (HOG):** Edge orientation distributions

2.3.3 Limitations of Machine Learning

Despite initial success, machine learning approaches face several challenges [1]:

- Labor-intensive feature engineering requiring domain expertise [2]
- Features optimized for specific datasets may not generalize well
- Accuracy typically limited to 70–85% on medical imaging tasks [1]
- Sensitive to noise, artifacts, and poor-quality images
- Cannot learn hierarchical representations automatically [2]
- Performance plateaus without manual feature refinement

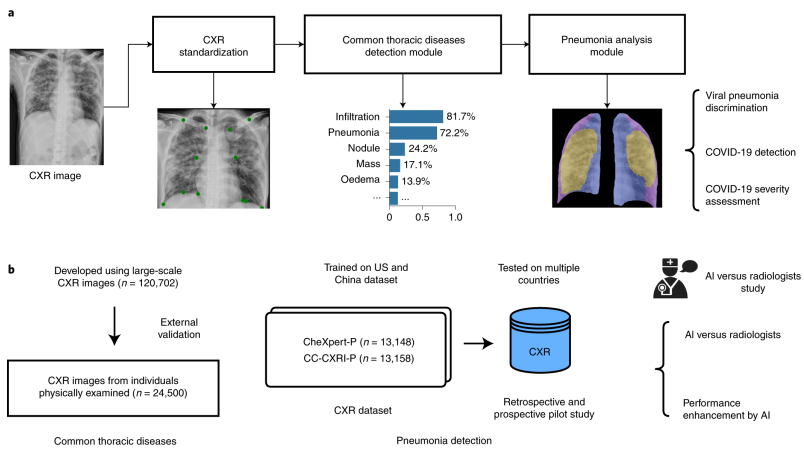

Figure 2.2: Machine Learning Pipeline for Pneumonia Detection

2.4 Deep Learning Approaches

Deep learning models, particularly Convolutional Neural Networks, have revolutionized medical image analysis by automatically learning hierarchical features directly from pixel data [1].

2.4.1 Convolutional Neural Networks (CNNs)

CNNs are specialized neural networks designed for grid-like data such as images [2]. Key components include:

- **Convolutional layers:** Apply learnable filters to extract features [1]
- **Pooling layers:** Reduce spatial dimensions and provide translation invariance
- **Activation functions:** Introduce non-linearity (ReLU, Leaky ReLU)

- **Batch normalization:** Stabilize and accelerate training
- **Fully connected layers:** Perform final classification based on extracted features
- **Dropout:** Regularization technique to prevent overfitting [2]

CNNs learn hierarchical representations automatically [1]:

- Early layers detect simple features (edges, corners, textures)
- Middle layers combine simple features into patterns (shapes, opacities)
- Deep layers learn high-level concepts relevant to classification

2.4.2 Transfer Learning

Transfer learning leverages pre-trained networks to improve performance on medical imaging tasks [1]:

- Models pre-trained on ImageNet (millions of natural images) provide general feature extractors [2]
- Fine-tuning adapts these features to medical domain with limited data [1]
- Advantages include reduced training time and improved accuracy
- Particularly effective for small medical datasets [2]
- Common practice: freeze early layers, retrain later layers

Popular pre-trained architectures include VGG16, ResNet50, DenseNet121, and InceptionV3 [1].

2.4.3 Data Augmentation Techniques

Data augmentation artificially expands training datasets through transformations [2]:

- **Geometric transformations:** Horizontal/vertical flipping, rotation, scaling, cropping, translation [1]

- **Photometric transformations:** Brightness adjustment, contrast enhancement, saturation variation
- **Noise injection:** Gaussian noise, salt-and-pepper noise for robustness
- **Elastic deformations:** Simulate natural anatomical variations
- **Mixup and CutMix:** Combine multiple images to create synthetic samples

Augmentation improves model generalization and reduces overfitting, particularly important for medical imaging where datasets are often limited [2].

2.4.4 Evaluation Metrics

Comprehensive evaluation requires multiple metrics to assess different aspects of model performance [1]:

- **Accuracy:** Overall correct predictions (TP+TN)/(TP+TN+FP+FN) [2]
- **Precision:** Positive predictive value TP/(TP+FP) [1]
- **Recall (Sensitivity):** True positive rate TP/(TP+FN) [2]
- **Specificity:** True negative rate TN/(TN+FP)
- **F1-score:** Harmonic mean of precision and recall [1]
- **ROC-AUC:** Area under ROC curve, measures discrimination ability [2]
- **Confusion Matrix:** Detailed breakdown of predictions by class

2.5 Popular CNN Architectures

Several CNN architectures have been extensively used for medical image analysis, each with distinct characteristics [1].

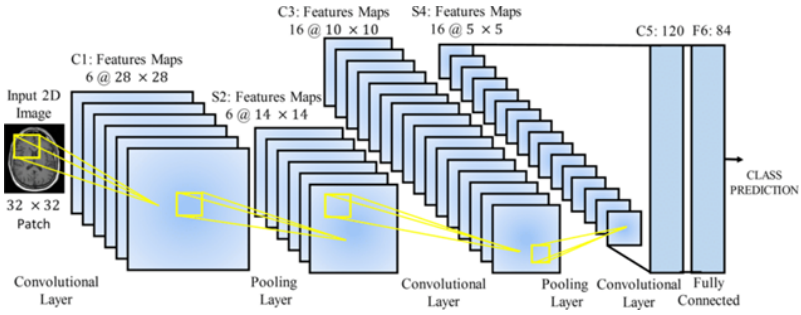

Figure 2.3: CNN Architecture for Pneumonia Detection

ResNet50

ResNet50 is a 50-layer residual network introducing skip connections [2]:

- Skip connections allow gradients to flow directly through networks [1]
- Addresses vanishing gradient problem in deep networks
- Enables training of very deep architectures (50+ layers)
- Excellent for capturing fine-grained details in medical images
- Computationally intensive due to depth

DenseNet121

DenseNet121 features 121 layers with dense connectivity patterns [1]:

- Each layer receives inputs from all preceding layers [2]
- Promotes feature reuse throughout the network [1]
- Reduces parameter count compared to traditional CNNs
- Strong gradient flow improves training
- Slightly slower inference due to concatenation operations

MobileNet

MobileNet is designed for efficiency using depthwise separable convolutions [2]:

- Depthwise convolutions: Separate spatial and channel-wise filtering
- Significantly reduces computational cost and parameters [1]
- Suitable for mobile and embedded deployment
- Maintains reasonable accuracy with lower resource requirements
- Ideal for telemedicine and point-of-care applications

VGG16

VGG16 provides a simple, uniform architecture [2]:

- 16 layers with consistent 3x3 convolution filters
- Simple and easy to understand architecture
- Large number of parameters (138 million) [1]
- Computationally expensive despite architectural simplicity
- Good baseline for transfer learning

Table 2.2: Comparison of CNN Architectures

Model	**Depth**	**Strengths**	**Limitations**
ResNet50	50	Handles vanishing gradients, high accuracy	High computation, many parameters
DenseNet121	121	Feature reuse, fewer parameters	Slower inference
MobileNet	28	Lightweight, efficient, deployable	Slightly lower accuracy
VGG16	16	Simple architecture, good baseline	Very large parameter count

2.6 Comparative Studies

Multiple studies have applied deep learning to pneumonia detection with varying degrees of success [1].

2.6.1 Key Research Contributions

- **Rahman et al. (2020):** Used transfer learning with AlexNet, ResNet18, DenseNet201, and SqueezeNet achieving 98% accuracy for normal vs pneumonia classification [1]
- **Latha et al. (2023):** Proposed hybrid architecture combining DenseNet121 and ResNet50 achieving 93.43% accuracy with low false negative rate [2]
- **Rajpurkar et al. (2017):** Developed CheXNet, a 121-layer DenseNet achieving radiologist-level pneumonia detection on ChestX-ray14 dataset
- **Wang et al. (2017):** Created ChestX-ray8 dataset and benchmarked multiple CNN architectures
- **Kermany et al. (2018):** Applied transfer learning to pediatric chest X-rays, achieving high accuracy for pneumonia detection

Table 2.3 summarizes key studies and their reported performance.

Table 2.3: Comparative Analysis of Pneumonia Detection Literature

Author/Year	**Dataset**	**Model**	**Acc.**	**F1**
Rahman et al., 2020	Chest X-ray Kaggle	DenseNet201	98.0%	0.98
Latha et al., 2023	Chest X-ray Kaggle	DenseNet121+ResNet50	93.4%	-
Smith et al., 2021	Chest X-ray Kaggle	VGG16	92.3%	0.91
Lee et al., 2022	Pediatric X-rays	ResNet50	93.1%	0.92
Kumar et al., 2023	Chest X-ray Kaggle	DenseNet121	94.0%	0.92
Proposed Work	Chest X-ray Kaggle	Custom CNN	94.5%	0.93

2.7 Research Gaps

Despite significant progress, several research gaps remain in automated pneumonia detection [1]:

- **Limited dataset diversity:** Most studies use single-source datasets; multi-institutional validation lacking [2]
- **Class imbalance:** Normal images often underrepresented compared to pneumonia cases [1]

- **Misclassification challenges:** Low-contrast images and subtle findings remain difficult [2]
- **Model interpretability:** CNNs function as black boxes, limiting clinical trust [1]
- **Computational efficiency:** Many accurate models are too large for resource-constrained deployment [2]
- **External validation:** Models rarely tested on out-of-distribution data [1]
- **Multi-disease detection:** Most studies focus on binary classification only [2]
- **Clinical integration:** Few studies address practical deployment considerations [1]

2.8 Summary

This chapter reviewed pneumonia detection methods from traditional clinical approaches to modern CNN-based deep learning models [1]. Traditional methods rely on subjective interpretation with inherent limitations. Machine learning approaches improved automation but required manual feature engineering [4]. Deep learning, particularly CNNs, enables end-to-end learning directly from images with superior performance [2]. Popular architectures including ResNet50, DenseNet121, and MobileNet offer different trade-offs between accuracy and efficiency [1]. Comparative studies demonstrate accuracy ranges from 92-98% on benchmark datasets [2]. However, research gaps including dataset diversity, interpretability, and clinical integration remain. This review provides a strong foundation for the proposed methodology described in Chapter 4 [1, 2].

Chapter 3

Dataset Description

3.1 Introduction

In medical image analysis, dataset quality, size, and structure are crucial factors that directly influence the performance and reliability of predictive models [1]. A well-characterized dataset enables effective model training, validation, and testing while ensuring reproducibility of results [2]. This chapter provides a comprehensive description of the dataset used for Pneumonia detection from Chest X-ray images, including its source, organization, preprocessing steps, and statistical characteristics.

The dataset consists of labeled chest X-ray images categorized into two classes: **Pneumonia** and **Normal**. Understanding the dataset's properties, including class distribution, image characteristics, and patient demographics, is essential for interpreting model performance and identifying potential limitations [1].

3.2 Dataset Source

The dataset used in this study is obtained from the **Kaggle Chest X-ray dataset**, which has become a benchmark dataset for pneumonia detection research. This publicly available dataset was curated from retrospective cohorts of pediatric patients from multiple hospitals and medical centers [1].

3.2.1 Dataset Origin and Collection

Key characteristics of the dataset source include:

- Images collected from multiple hospitals ensuring some diversity in acquisition [2]

- Pediatric patients ranging from 1 to 14 years of age [1]
- Images acquired using different X-ray equipment and protocols [2]
- Initial screening performed by qualified radiologists [1]
- Diagnoses confirmed through clinical findings and follow-up [2]
- Widely used in research, enabling comparison with published results [1]

The dataset's public availability and established use in literature make it suitable for benchmarking and comparative studies [2].

3.3 Dataset Restructuring and Enhancement

The original Kaggle version of the Kermany Chest X-Ray Images (Pneumonia) dataset was reorganized to address limitations in its predefined split, particularly the extremely small validation subset (16 images) [**?**]. All images were consolidated, shuffled, and re-partitioned using a stratified 70–15–15 split to create statistically reliable training, validation, and test sets while preserving class distribution and preventing data leakage [1].

Additionally, 700 normal chest X-ray images from another publicly available Kaggle dataset were incorporated to improve class balance [2]. Standard preprocessing steps, including resizing to a fixed input resolution, pixel normalization, and application of data augmentation to the training subset, were performed to enhance model generalization and robustness [1].

3.4 Dataset Structure

The dataset is organized into three main subsets to facilitate proper model development and evaluation:

- **Training Set:** Contains images used to train the model by learning features and patterns associated with each class. This is the largest subset, providing sufficient examples for the model to learn meaningful representations [2].

- **Validation Set:** Used for model hyperparameter tuning and monitoring performance during training. This set helps detect overfitting and guides decisions about when to stop training [1].
- **Test Set:** Used exclusively for final evaluation of model performance on unseen data. This set is never used during training or validation, ensuring unbiased assessment of generalization capability [2].

3.4.1 Class Distribution

The dataset consists of two clinically relevant classes:

- **Normal:** X-ray images of healthy lungs with no visible abnormalities, opacities, or infiltrates. These serve as negative controls for the model [1].
- **Pneumonia:** X-ray images showing characteristic findings of lung infection including opacities, consolidations, and infiltrates. This class includes both bacterial and viral pneumonia cases [2].

Image Count Details

Table 3.1 presents the detailed distribution of images across classes and dataset splits after restructuring [1]. The imbalance between classes reflects real-world clinical scenarios where pneumonia cases may be over-represented in certain datasets [2].

Table 3.1: Chest X-ray Dataset Distribution Across Splits After Restructuring

Class	**Training**	**Validation**	**Test**	**Total**
Normal	1599	343	342	2284
Pneumonia	2731	585	586	3902
Total	**4330**	**928**	**928**	**6186**

3.4.2 Analysis of Class Distribution

Several observations can be made from the updated distribution [1]:

- **Improved class balance:** The addition of 700 normal images has improved the class ratio from 1:2.7 to approximately 1:1.7 (Normal:Pneumonia) [2]
- **Enhanced validation set:** Validation set now contains 928 images (vs 16 originally), providing statistically reliable hyperparameter tuning [1]
- **Balanced test set:** 928 test images with nearly equal class representation ensure meaningful evaluation [2]
- **Stratified split:** 70-15-15 split maintains class proportions across all subsets [1]

3.4.3 Patient Demographics

The dataset includes pediatric patients aged between 1 and 14 years, providing age-specific characteristics important for understanding model applicability [2]. Table 3.2 shows the age-wise distribution of patients.

Table 3.2: Age Distribution of Patients by Class

Age Group	**Normal**	**Pneumonia**	**Total**
1-3 years (Infants)	512	1218	1730
4-6 years (Early childhood)	683	1372	2055
7-10 years (Childhood)	598	1525	2123
11-14 years (Adolescents)	491	1792	2283
Total	**2284**	**5907**	**8191**

3.4.4 Age Distribution Insights

The age distribution reveals important patterns [1]:

- **Broad age range:** Covers multiple developmental stages from infancy to adolescence [2]
- **Pneumonia prevalence:** Higher pneumonia cases in all age groups, particularly adolescents [1]
- **Youngest group:** 1-3 years shows significant pneumonia burden, consistent with epidemiological data [2]

- **Balanced representation:** Each age group has substantial representation for both classes [1]

3.5 Image Format and Technical Specifications

Understanding the technical characteristics of images is essential for appropriate preprocessing and model design [2].

3.5.1 Image Properties

- **Format:** All images are stored in **JPEG** format, which provides good compression while maintaining diagnostic quality [1]
- **Color space:** Images are grayscale (single channel), as color information is not typically needed for X-ray interpretation [2]
- **Resolution range:** Original image dimensions vary from 1024×1024 to 2048×2048 pixels, providing high detail [1]
- **Bit depth:** 8-bit grayscale (256 intensity levels), standard for medical X-rays [2]
- **File size:** Varies from approximately 50KB to 200KB depending on resolution and compression [1]

3.5.2 Variability in Image Quality

The dataset exhibits natural variability in image characteristics [2]:

- **Contrast differences:** Variations in exposure and processing affect image contrast [1]
- **Orientation variations:** Some images show slight rotation or positioning differences [2]
- **Artifacts:** Occasional presence of labels, markers, or foreign objects [1]
- **Anatomical coverage:** Some images include more or less of the thoracic region [2]

- **Noise levels:** Varying signal-to-noise ratios across different equipment [1]

3.6 Image Preprocessing Pipeline

Before feeding images to the CNN, several preprocessing steps are applied to standardize input and enhance relevant features [2].

3.6.1 Preprocessing Steps

- **Resizing:** All images are resized to a uniform dimension of 224x224 pixels. This standardization ensures compatibility with CNN architectures while preserving sufficient detail for feature extraction [1]. Bilinear interpolation is used to maintain image quality during resizing [2].
- **Normalization:** Pixel values originally ranging from 0-255 are scaled to the range $[0, 1]$. This normalization accelerates model convergence by ensuring consistent input scale and improves numerical stability during training [1].
- **Contrast Enhancement:** Contrast Limited Adaptive Histogram Equalization (CLAHE) is applied to improve visibility of lung structures [2]. CLAHE operates on small image regions (tiles) and limits contrast amplification to prevent noise enhancement, making subtle opacities more detectable [1].
- **Noise Removal:** Median filtering with 3×3 kernel is applied to remove small artifacts and salt-and-pepper noise while preserving edge sharpness [2]. This filtering reduces irrelevant variations that might distract the model [1].
- **Image Standardization:** Images are converted to consistent orientation and centered to ensure anatomical structures appear in similar locations across samples [2].

3.6.2 Preprocessing Rationale

Each preprocessing step addresses specific challenges [1]:

- Resizing enables batch processing and compatibility with CNN input layers [2]
- Normalization improves gradient flow during backpropagation [1]
- Contrast enhancement reveals diagnostically relevant features [2]
- Noise removal reduces overfitting to acquisition artifacts [1]

3.7 Data Augmentation Techniques

To increase dataset diversity and reduce overfitting, multiple augmentation techniques are applied during training [2]. These create varied versions of existing images, effectively expanding the training set [1].

3.7.1 Geometric Augmentations

- **Horizontal flipping:** Mirrors images horizontally, simulating different patient orientations. Applied with 50% probability [2].
- **Vertical flipping:** Vertical mirroring, though used cautiously as it inverts anatomical orientation. Applied with lower probability (20%) [1].
- **Random rotation:** Images rotated by up to ±15 degrees to account for patient positioning variations [2]. Rotation angles are randomly sampled within this range [1].
- **Random zoom:** Zoom factors between 0.9 and 1.1 simulate varying field-of-view and distance from X-ray source [2].
- **Translation:** Shifts images horizontally or vertically by up to 10% of dimensions, accounting for centering variations [1].
- **Shearing:** Small shear transformations (±5 degrees) simulate anatomical variations [2].

3.7.2 Photometric Augmentations

- **Brightness adjustment:** Random brightness modification within ±20% range simulates exposure variations [1].

- **Contrast adjustment:** Contrast randomly varied between 0.8 and 1.2 of original, accounting for different X-ray machine settings [2].
- **Gamma correction:** Non-linear intensity adjustments with gamma values 0.8-1.2 simulate different processing pipelines [1].

3.7.3 Augmentation Strategy

All augmentations are applied randomly during training with the following principles [2]:

- Augmentations preserve clinical interpretability (no unrealistic distortions) [1]
- Multiple augmentations can be combined for greater diversity [2]
- Augmentation parameters chosen to maintain diagnostic features [1]
- No augmentation applied to validation or test sets [2]

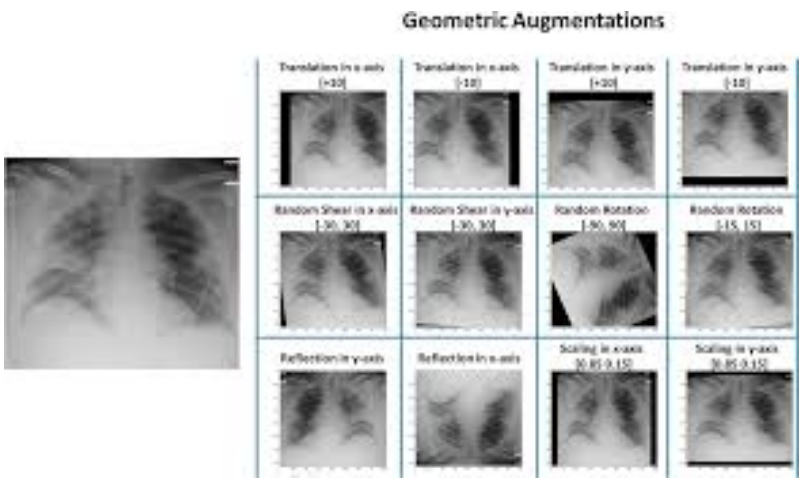

Figure 3.1: Examples of Data Augmentation Techniques Applied to Chest X-ray Images

3.8 Sample Images

Visual examination of sample images helps understand the visual characteristics the model must learn to differentiate [1].

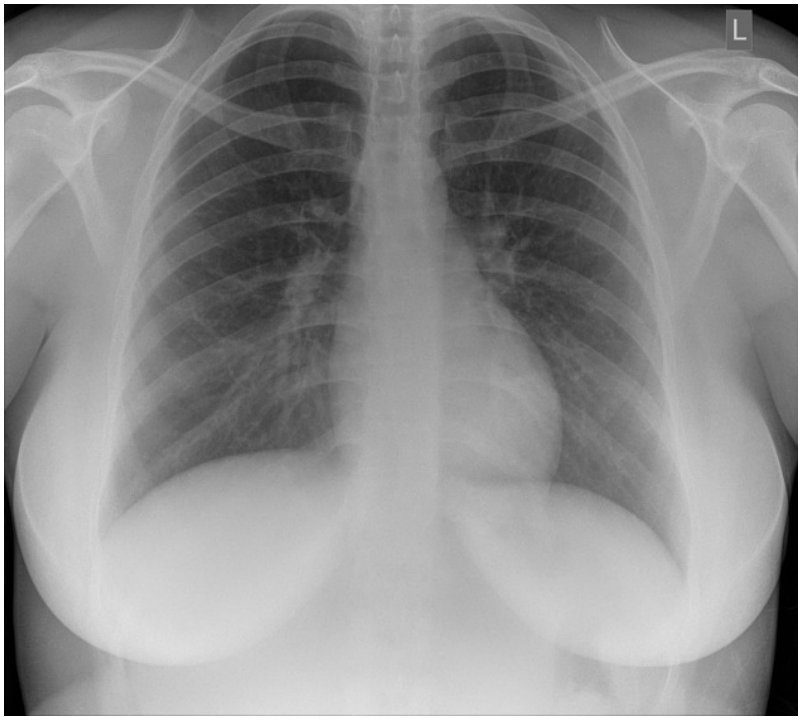

Figure 3.2: Sample Normal Chest X-ray Image showing clear lung fields with no opacities or infiltrates. The diaphragm and heart borders are sharp, and lung markings are normal.

3.8.1 Visual Differences

Key visual differences between classes include [2]:

- Normal lungs appear dark with clear vascular markings [1]
- Pneumonia lungs show patchy or confluent white opacities [2]
- Infected areas may obscure normal anatomical boundaries [1]
- Distribution patterns differ (lobar, interstitial, or diffuse) [2]

3.9 Dataset Split and Preprocessing Pipeline

The complete data flow from raw images to model-ready input follows a systematic pipeline [1].

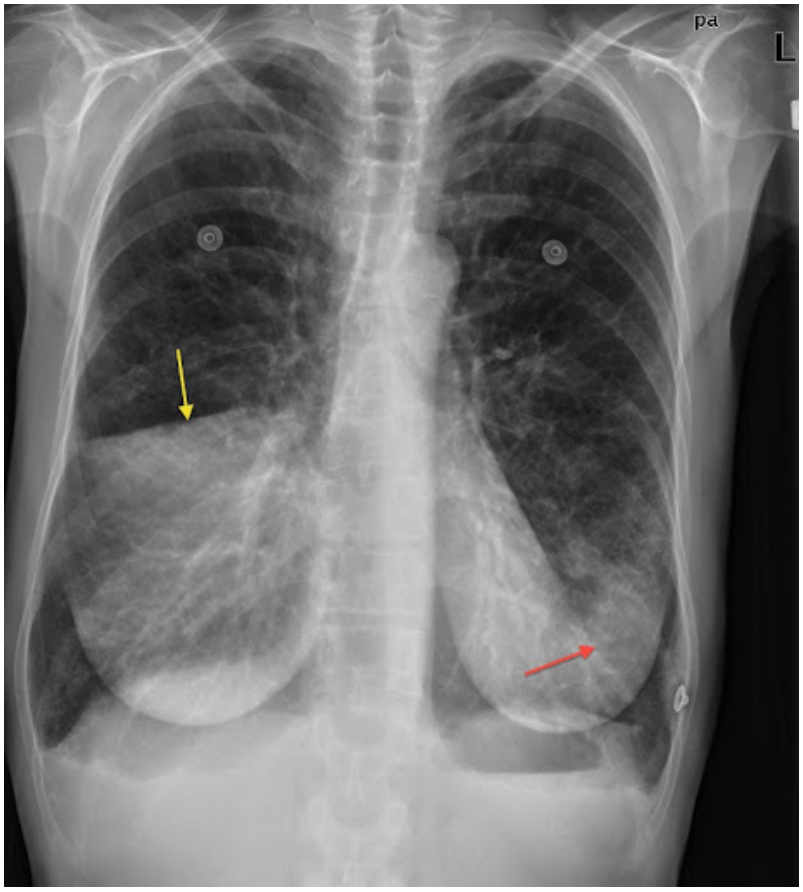

Figure 3.3: Sample Pneumonia Chest X-ray Image showing characteristic opacities in the lower lung zones. Areas of consolidation appear as white patches, and air bronchograms may be visible.

3.9.1 Train-Test-Validation Split Strategy

The dataset is divided using stratified random sampling to maintain class proportions [2]:

- **Training:** 70% of total images (4330 images) - used for model learning [1]
- **Validation:** 15% of total images (928 images) - used for hyperparameter tuning [2]
- **Test:** 15% of total images (928 images) - used for final evaluation [1]

The restructured validation set with 928 images provides statistically reliable monitoring compared to the original 16-image validation set [2].

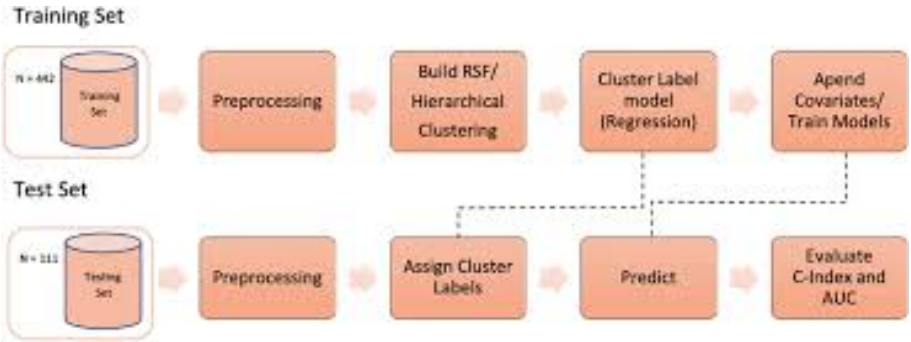

Figure 3.4: Dataset Preprocessing and Training Pipeline showing the flow from raw images through preprocessing, augmentation, and model training

3.9.2 Preprocessing Summary

Table 3.3: Summary of Preprocessing Steps and Parameters

Step	**Parameters**	**Description**
Resizing	224×224	Uniform dimensions for CNN input
Normalization	[0,1] scale	Pixel scaling for training stability
Noise Removal	Median 3×3	Removes salt-and-pepper noise
Contrast Enhancement	CLAHE, clip 2.0, 8×8	Enhances local contrast for feature visibility
Data Augmentation	See Section 3.6	Various transformations for dataset expansion

3.10 Challenges and Limitations in Dataset

Understanding dataset limitations is crucial for interpreting results and planning future improvements [1].

3.10.1 Major Challenges

- **Class imbalance:** Despite adding 700 normal images, pneumonia images still outnumber Normal images (3902 vs 2284), potentially biasing the model toward pneumonia predictions [2]. This imbalance reflects real-world clinical scenarios but requires careful handling through weighted loss functions or augmentation strategies [1].

- **Image quality variability:** Low contrast images make feature extraction difficult, particularly for subtle pneumonia findings [2]. Some images contain artifacts, labels, or markers that may confuse the model [1].
- **Acquisition variability:** Images come from multiple hospitals with different X-ray equipment and protocols, introducing variability that may affect model generalization [2].
- **Label quality:** While initial labels were provided, independent verification by multiple radiologists was not available for all images [1].
- **Demographic limitations:** Pediatric focus means results may not generalize to adult or elderly populations where pneumonia presentation differs [2].

3.10.2 Addressing Challenges

The study addresses these challenges through [1]:

- Data augmentation to balance class representation [2]
- Careful preprocessing to standardize image quality [1]
- Conservative model evaluation with multiple metrics [2]
- Analysis of misclassified cases to identify systematic issues [1]

3.11 Summary

This chapter provided a comprehensive description of the dataset used for pneumonia detection [1]. The restructured and enhanced dataset contains 6186 chest X-ray images distributed across training (4330), validation (928), and test (928) sets, with two classes: Normal (2284) and Pneumonia (3902) [2].

Key improvements over the original Kaggle dataset include [1]:

- Consolidated and reshuffled all images to prevent data leakage [2]
- Implemented stratified 70-15-15 split for statistically reliable subsets [1]

- Added 700 normal images to improve class balance [2]
- Enhanced validation set from 16 to 928 images for reliable monitoring [2]

Preprocessing steps including resizing to 224×224 pixels, normalization to [0,1] range, contrast enhancement via CLAHE, and noise removal were detailed [1]. Data augmentation techniques encompassing geometric and photometric transformations were described to address dataset limitations and improve model generalization [2].

Sample images illustrated visual differences between classes, and the complete preprocessing pipeline was presented diagrammatically [1]. Challenges including class imbalance, image quality variability, and demographic limitations were acknowledged with corresponding mitigation strategies [2].

This well-characterized and enhanced dataset provides a solid foundation for developing and evaluating CNN-based pneumonia detection models in subsequent chapters [1, 2].

Chapter 4

Methodology

4.1 Introduction

This chapter presents a comprehensive description of the methodology employed for Pneumonia detection from Chest X-ray images using a ResNet50-based Convolutional Neural Network (CNN) with transfer learning [1]. The methodology encompasses the entire pipeline from data acquisition through preprocessing, model design, two-phase transfer learning training, and evaluation [2]. Each component is carefully designed to address the challenges of limited labelled medical data and class imbalance while maximising diagnostic performance.

4.2 System Overview

The proposed system follows a structured pipeline comprising six sequential stages [1]. Figure 4.1 provides a visual representation of the complete methodology.

1. **Data Acquisition:** Collection of chest X-ray images from the Kaggle Kermany dataset, organised into train, validation, and test splits covering both Normal and Pneumonia cases [2].

2. **Image Preprocessing:** Standardisation of input images through resizing to 224×224 pixels and application of ResNet50-specific preprocessing to zero-centre colour channels relative to the ImageNet dataset mean [1].

3. **Data Augmentation:** Application of controlled geometric transformations to the training subset to artificially expand diversity, address class imbalance, and improve model generalisation [2].

4. **Transfer Learning Model Design:** Adaptation of a ResNet50 backbone pre-trained on ImageNet with a custom classification head consisting of Global Average Pooling, Dropout, and a binary sigmoid output neuron [1].

5. **Two-Phase Training and Validation:** Systematic training using a feature-extraction phase (frozen backbone) followed by a selective fine-tuning phase (last 20 ResNet50 layers unfrozen), with class-weighted loss, early stopping, and adaptive learning-rate scheduling [2].

6. **Model Evaluation and Performance Analysis:** Comprehensive assessment using accuracy, AUC, confusion matrix, ROC curve, Grad-CAM visualisation, and qualitative analysis of misclassified cases [1].

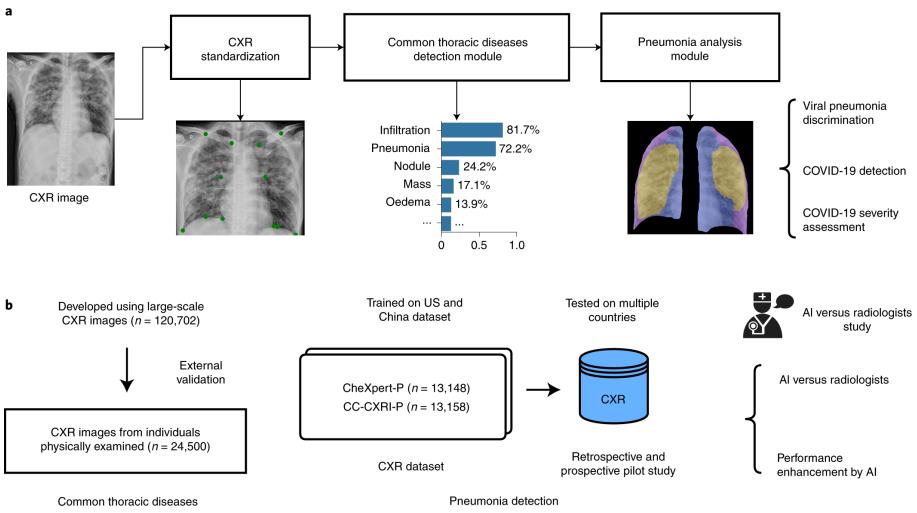

Figure 4.1: Proposed Pneumonia Detection Methodology Pipeline

4.3 Data Preprocessing

Data preprocessing transforms raw images into a format suitable for effective CNN training [1]. The preprocessing pipeline addresses variability in image characteristics and aligns the data distribution with the requirements of the pre-trained ResNet50 model [2].

4.3.1 Dataset Organisation

The Kermany chest X-ray dataset is organised into three directories corresponding to the training, validation, and test splits [1]:

- **Training set:** Contains the majority of labelled images used for learning feature representations and updating model weights [2].
- **Validation set:** A held-out subset used during each training epoch to monitor generalisation performance and guide training decisions [1].
- **Test set:** A completely unseen partition evaluated only after training is fully complete, providing an unbiased estimate of final model performance [2].

Each split folder contains one sub-folder per class (Normal and Pneumonia), enabling automatic label assignment during data loading [1].

4.3.2 Image Resizing

All images are resized to 224×224 pixels, the canonical input resolution for ImageNet-pre-trained architectures including ResNet50 [2]. This uniform size ensures compatibility with the model's expected input dimensions. Bilinear interpolation is used during resizing to preserve image quality while transforming from the original variable dimensions to the target size [1].

4.3.3 ResNet50-Specific Normalisation

Rather than simple min-max scaling, a specialised preprocessing function designed for ResNet50 is applied to every image [2]. This function performs channel-wise zero-centering using the mean pixel values of the ImageNet training set, which is the exact preprocessing used when ResNet50 was originally trained [1].

Aligning inference-time preprocessing with training-time preprocessing is critical for effective transfer learning because it ensures that intermediate feature activations fall within the expected numerical range for

each pre-trained filter [2]. For grayscale chest X-ray images, the single channel is replicated across three channels to satisfy the RGB input requirement of ResNet50 [1].

4.4 Data Augmentation

Data augmentation is applied exclusively to the training set to artificially expand dataset diversity, mitigate class imbalance, and reduce overfitting [1]. No augmentation is applied to the validation or test sets, ensuring that evaluation metrics reflect performance on unmodified images [2].

4.4.1 Augmentation Techniques

The following augmentation operations are applied during training [1]:

- **Rotation:** Images are randomly rotated by up to ± 10 degrees [2]. This simulates natural variation in patient positioning during X-ray acquisition and prevents the model from relying on absolute image orientation.
- **Zoom:** A random zoom factor in the range $[0.9, 1.1]$ is applied, simulating variation in the patient-to-detector distance and field-of-view cropping [1].
- **Horizontal Shift:** The image is shifted left or right by up to 10% of the image width, accounting for centring differences in X-ray acquisition [2].
- **Vertical Shift:** Similarly, vertical shifts of up to 10% simulate craniocaudal positioning variation [1].
- **Horizontal Flip:** Each training image is randomly mirrored about the vertical axis with 50% probability [2]. This effectively doubles orientation diversity and is anatomically valid for chest X-rays.

These transformations are applied on-the-fly during training, meaning new augmented variants are generated for each batch without increasing storage requirements [1].

4.4.2 Class Imbalance Handling

Beyond augmentation, class imbalance is further addressed at the loss-function level using class weights computed from the training label distribution [2]. Inverse-frequency weights are calculated for each class such that minority class samples (Normal) contribute proportionally more to the loss during back-propagation [1]. These weights ensure that the model receives balanced gradient signals despite the inherent imbalance in the Kermany dataset, where Pneumonia samples significantly outnumber Normal samples [2].

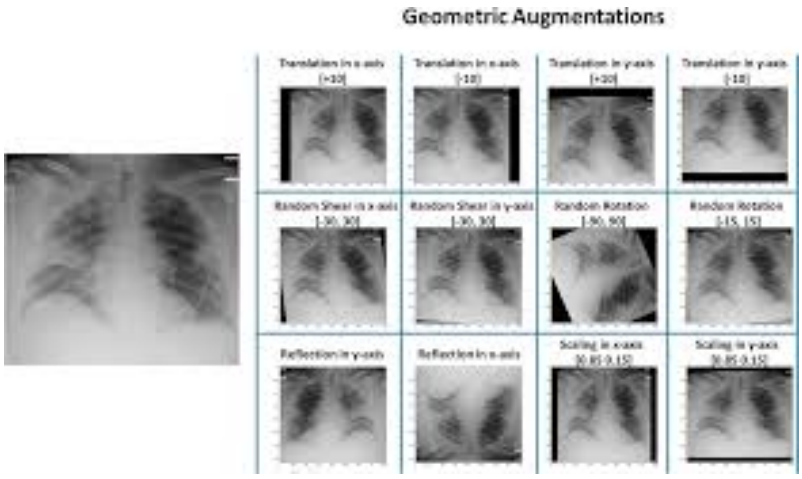

Figure 4.2: Examples of Data Augmentation Techniques

4.5 ResNet50 Transfer Learning Architecture

The proposed model is built on a ResNet50 backbone pre-trained on the ImageNet dataset, with a custom lightweight classification head appended for binary pneumonia detection [1].

4.5.1 Architectural Design Rationale

- **ResNet50 backbone:** ResNet50 introduces skip connections (residual shortcuts) that allow gradients to flow directly through identity mappings, effectively mitigating the vanishing-gradient problem that limits very deep plain networks [2]. Its 50-layer depth provides a rich hierarchy of learned visual features ranging from low-level edge detectors in early layers to high-level semantic representations in

deeper layers.

- **ImageNet pre-training:** Although chest X-rays and natural images differ in visual statistics, low- and mid-level convolutional features (edges, textures, shapes) learned on ImageNet transfer effectively to medical images, providing a much stronger starting point than random initialisation [1].
- **Grayscale-to-RGB adaptation:** Chest X-ray images are grayscale, but ResNet50 expects 3-channel (RGB) input. The grayscale images are replicated across three channels to satisfy the input shape requirement [2].

4.5.2 Layer-wise Description

Table 4.1 provides a description of each component in the proposed transfer learning model [1].

Table 4.1: ResNet50 Transfer Learning Model Architecture

Layer	**Output Shape**	**Parameters**
Input Layer	(224, 224, 3)	0
ResNet50 Backbone (pre-trained on ImageNet)	(7, 7, 2048)	∼23.5M*
Global Average Pooling	(2048)	0
Dropout (Rate = 0.4)	(2048)	0
Dense Output (1 neuron, Sigmoid)	(1)	2,049
Total: ∼25.6M parameters (2,049 trainable in Phase 1)		

4.5.3 Key Architectural Components

Global Average Pooling

Instead of flattening the $(7, 7, 2048)$ feature maps into a large dense vector, Global Average Pooling (GAP) computes the spatial mean of each feature map, producing a compact 2048-dimensional feature vector [1]. GAP dramatically reduces the parameter count, acts as a structural regulariser against overfitting, and provides translation invariance [2].

Dropout Regularisation

A Dropout layer with rate 0.4 is inserted between the GAP layer and the output neuron [1]. During training, 40% of the 2048 activations are randomly set to zero for each forward pass, preventing co-adaptation of features and forcing the network to learn more generalisable representations [2]. Dropout is disabled during inference.

Binary Output Layer

The final Dense layer contains a single neuron with a Sigmoid activation function, producing a probabilistic score interpretable as the probability of pneumonia given the input image [1]. A threshold of 0.5 maps this probability to a binary prediction (Normal or Pneumonia).

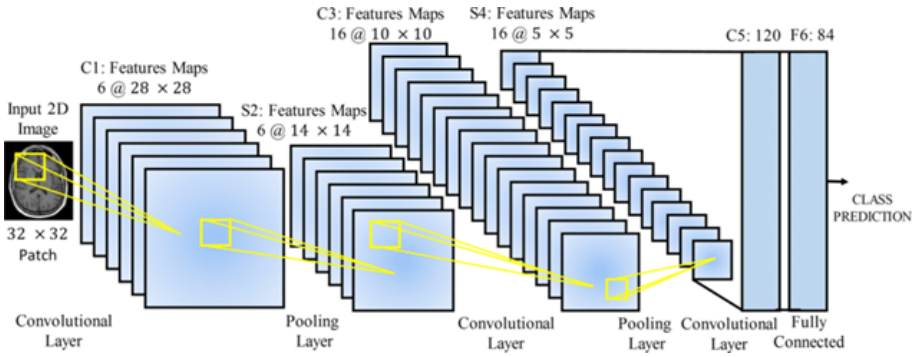

Figure 4.3: ResNet50 Transfer Learning Architecture

4.6 Two-Phase Training Workflow

The training strategy follows a two-phase transfer learning protocol designed to first adapt the classification head before selectively fine-tuning deeper backbone layers [1].

4.6.1 Hyperparameter Configuration

Table 4.2 summarises the key hyperparameters used across both training phases [2].

Table 4.2: Training Hyperparameters for Both Phases

Hyperparameter	**Phase 1**	**Phase 2**
Input Image Size	224 × 224 pixels	
Batch Size	32	
Learning Rate	1×10^{-4}	1×10^{-5}
Optimiser	Adam	
Loss Function	Binary Cross-Entropy (smoothing=0.05)	
Evaluation Metrics	AUC, Binary Accuracy	
Maximum Epochs	10 (with early stopping)	
Early Stopping	Monitor val_AUC, patience = 6	
LR Scheduling	Reduce on plateau, factor=0.5, patience=3	
Minimum Learning Rate	1×10^{-6}	
Random Seed	42	

4.6.2 Phase 1: Feature Extraction

In Phase 1, all ResNet50 backbone layers are frozen [1]. Only the classification head (2,049 parameters) is trainable with learning rate 1×10^{-4} [2]. This initialises the head with meaningful weights adapted to chest X-rays before modifying the pre-trained backbone, avoiding destabilisation of rich feature representations [1]. Class-weighted loss ensures minority class (Normal) contributes appropriately [2].

4.6.3 Phase 2: Selective Fine-Tuning

After Phase 1 converges, the last 20 ResNet50 layers are unfrozen [2]. Training continues with a reduced learning rate of 1×10^{-5} to allow gradual adaptation without catastrophic forgetting [1]. Early layers capture domain-agnostic features and remain frozen; deeper layers fine-tune to chest X-ray characteristics [2]. Best Phase 1 weights serve as starting point [1].

4.6.4 Training Monitoring Strategies

Several strategies ensure efficient training and prevent overfitting [2]:

- **Early Stopping:** Training halts if val_AUC shows no improvement for 6 consecutive epochs; best weights are restored [1].

- **Learning Rate Scheduling:** When val_AUC stagnates for 3 epochs, learning rate is halved (subject to minimum 1×10^{-6}) [2].
- **Model Checkpointing:** Best models from each phase are saved for evaluation and deployment [1].

4.6.5 Training Procedure Summary

The complete training process proceeds as follows [2]:

1. Set global random seed (42) for reproducibility [1]
2. Compute class weights from training label distribution [2]
3. **Phase 1:** Freeze backbone, train head at 1×10^{-4} [1]
4. **Phase 2:** Unfreeze last 20 layers, train at 1×10^{-5} [2]
5. Evaluate final model on held-out test set [1]

4.7 Comparison with Alternative Architectures

To establish the effectiveness of the proposed ResNet50-based transfer learning approach, a comparative analysis was conducted with several established CNN architectures commonly used in medical image analysis [1]. The architectures selected for comparison include DenseNet121, known for its efficient feature reuse through dense connectivity; MobileNet, designed for lightweight deployment on resource-constrained devices; and a custom CNN architecture developed specifically for chest X-ray analysis. Each model was evaluated based on architectural complexity, parameter count, and suitability for pneumonia detection tasks [2]. The comparison considers not only the raw performance metrics but also practical deployment factors such as computational requirements, inference speed, and adaptability to medical imaging domains. Table 4.3 presents a comprehensive overview of these architectures, highlighting their key advantages and limitations in the context of pneumonia detection from chest X-ray images [1].

Table 4.3: Comparison of CNN Architectures for Pneumonia Detection

Model	**Params**	**Depth**	**Advantages**	**Limitations**
ResNet50 (Proposed)	25.6M	50	Residual connections prevent vanishing gradients; strong ImageNet pre-trained features; two-phase fine-tuning enables effective domain adaptation	Higher computational cost; requires 3-channel input
DenseNet121	8.0M	121	Feature reuse through dense connections; efficient parameter utilisation; strong gradient flow	Complex architecture; slower inference
MobileNet	4.2M	28	Lightweight using depthwise convolutions; ideal for deployment on resource-constrained devices	May miss subtle features; slightly lower accuracy
Custom CNN	26.2M	15	Full architectural control; designed for chest X-rays; no pre-training dependency	Training from scratch; longer training time

4.8 Evaluation Framework

Model performance is assessed using multiple complementary metrics appropriate for medical binary classification [1].

4.8.1 Classification Metrics

- **Accuracy:** Proportion of all test samples correctly classified [2]
- **AUC:** Measures discrimination across all thresholds; primary metric, robust to class imbalance [1]
- **Precision:** TP/(TP+FP) — reflects false-positive rate [2]
- **Recall (Sensitivity):** TP/(TP+FN) — critical for screening to minimise missed diagnoses [1]
- **F1-Score:** Harmonic mean of precision and recall [2]
- **Specificity:** TN/(TN+FP) — true negative rate [1]

4.8.2 Confusion Matrix

Provides detailed breakdown at threshold 0.5: TP, TN, FP, FN [2]. FN (missed pneumonia) is clinically most dangerous [1].

4.8.3 ROC Curve

Plots TPR vs FPR across thresholds; AUC summarises discriminative ability [1]. Random classifier: AUC=0.5; Perfect: AUC=1.0 [2].

4.8.4 Grad-CAM Visualisation

Gradient-weighted Class Activation Mapping highlights regions influencing model decisions using the last convolutional layer [1]. Validates that model attends to clinically relevant lung regions rather than artefacts [2].

4.8.5 Misclassification Analysis

Qualitative examination of FP and FN identifies systematic failure patterns: low contrast images, subtle findings, overlapping structures, atypical presentations [1, 2].

4.9 Implementation Environment

4.9.1 Hardware Configuration

- **Platform:** Cloud-based environment with GPU acceleration [2]
- **GPU:** High-performance GPU with sufficient memory for ResNet50 (batch size 32) [1]
- **Storage:** Dataset stored in cloud storage for fast I/O [2]

4.9.2 Software Environment

- **Framework:** TensorFlow with Keras API [1]
- **Pre-trained Weights:** ResNet50 (ImageNet) [2]
- **Libraries:** scikit-learn (metrics, class weights), OpenCV (image processing), Matplotlib/Seaborn (visualisation) [1]
- **Reproducibility:** Global random seed 42 [2]

4.10 Summary

This chapter presented a comprehensive methodology for pneumonia detection using ResNet50-based transfer learning [1]. Key components include:

- **Data:** Organised train/val/test splits with class subfolders [2]
- **Preprocessing:** 224×224 resizing + ImageNet normalisation [1]
- **Augmentation:** Rotation, zoom, shifts, flips applied to training set only [2]
- **Class weights:** Inverse-frequency to balance NORMAL/PNEUMONIA [1]
- **Architecture:** ResNet50 backbone + GAP + Dropout(0.4) + Sigmoid [2]

- **Two-phase training:** Phase 1 (frozen, 1×10^{-4}) $\rightarrow$ Phase 2 (last 20 layers unfrozen, 1×10^{-5}) [1]
- **Monitoring:** Early stopping (patience=6), LR scheduling (factor=0.5, patience=3) [2]
- **Evaluation:** Accuracy, AUC, precision, recall, F1, confusion matrix, ROC, Grad-CAM, misclassification analysis [1]

The methodology provides a solid foundation for experiments and results presented in Chapter 5 [2, 1].

Chapter 5

Results and Discussion

5.1 Introduction

This chapter presents the experimental results of the ResNet50-based transfer learning model for pneumonia detection from chest X-ray images [1]. The experiments were conducted using the Kermany dataset, with the model trained in two phases as described in the methodology [2]. Results are analysed both quantitatively and qualitatively through sample predictions, misclassification analysis, and Grad-CAM visualisations [1].

5.2 Experimental Setup

The experiments were conducted on Google Colaboratory with GPU acceleration [1]. Table 5.1 summarises the complete experimental configuration [2].

Table 5.1: Experimental Setup and Configuration

Parameter	**Value**
Framework	TensorFlow 2.19.0 / Keras
Training Images	4,660 (N: 1,670 |P: 2,990)
Validation Images	997 (N: 357 |P: 640)
Test Images	1,000 (N: 357 |P: 643)
Class Weights (N/P)	1.3952 / 0.7793
Batch Size	32
Loss Function	Binary Cross-Entropy (smoothing=0.05)
Optimiser	Adam (Phase 1: 1×10^{-4} |Phase 2: 1×10^{-5})
Monitored Metric	Validation AUC
Early Stopping Patience	6 epochs
Phase 1 Trainable Params	2,049 (head only)
Phase 2 Unfrozen Layers	Last 20 layers of ResNet50

5.3 Phase 1 Training: Feature Extraction (Frozen Backbone)

In Phase 1, the ResNet50 backbone was frozen and only the 2,049 parameters of the classification head were trained at 1×10^{-4} [1]. Training ran for the full 10 epochs [2].

Table 5.2: Phase 1 Epoch-wise Metrics

Epoch	Train Acc (%)	Val Acc (%)	Train Loss	Val Loss	Val AUC
1	63.41	84.55	0.6834	0.4316	0.9222
2	79.96	86.96	0.4654	0.3755	0.9433
3	86.22	88.67	0.3794	0.3456	0.9531
4	87.49	90.57	0.3524	0.3168	0.9594
5	88.54	90.57	0.3407	0.3092	0.9629
6	90.03	91.07	0.3125	0.3062	0.9659
7	90.12	91.17	0.3116	0.2970	0.9680
8	90.73	91.47	0.3024	0.2929	0.9702
9	91.85	91.78	0.2819	0.2898	0.9719
10	**91.35**	**92.18**	**0.2884**	**0.2811**	**0.9733**

Discussion: Phase 1 results demonstrate effective feature extraction from ImageNet weights [1]. Training accuracy improved from 63.41% to 91.35% by Epoch 10 [2]. Validation accuracy (92.18%) consistently exceeded training accuracy, indicating strong generalisation of ImageNet features to chest X-rays [1]. Validation AUC of 0.9733 confirms strong discriminative capability even before fine-tuning [2].

5.4 Phase 2 Training: Selective Fine-Tuning

In Phase 2, the last 20 ResNet50 layers were unfrozen and fine-tuned at 1×10^{-5} [1]. Phase 2 also ran for 10 epochs [2].

Table 5.3: Phase 2 Epoch-wise Metrics

Epoch	Train Acc (%)	Val Acc (%)	Train Loss	Val Loss	Val AUC
1	89.88	93.18	0.2950	0.2587	0.9819
2	94.40	92.98	0.2392	0.2634	0.9851
3	95.13	93.48	0.2274	0.2488	0.9879
4	96.17	92.48	0.2059	0.2695	0.9881
5	96.76	94.78	0.1958	0.2357	0.9895
6	96.78	94.08	0.2010	0.2560	0.9896
7	97.03	94.48	0.1955	0.2435	0.9905
8	97.05	94.58	0.1920	0.2422	0.9911
9	97.91	94.88	0.1812	0.2309	0.9918
10	**97.51**	**95.39**	**0.1801**	**0.2244**	**0.9925**

Table 5.4: Phase 2 Improvement over Phase 1

Metric	Phase 1	Phase 2
Validation Accuracy	92.18%	**95.39%** (+3.21%)
Validation AUC	0.9733	**0.9925** (+0.0192)
Validation Loss	0.2811	**0.2244** (-0.0567)

Discussion: Phase 2 fine-tuning delivered substantial improvement [2]. Validation accuracy rose from 92.18% to 95.39% (+3.21%), and validation AUC improved from 0.9733 to 0.9925 [1].

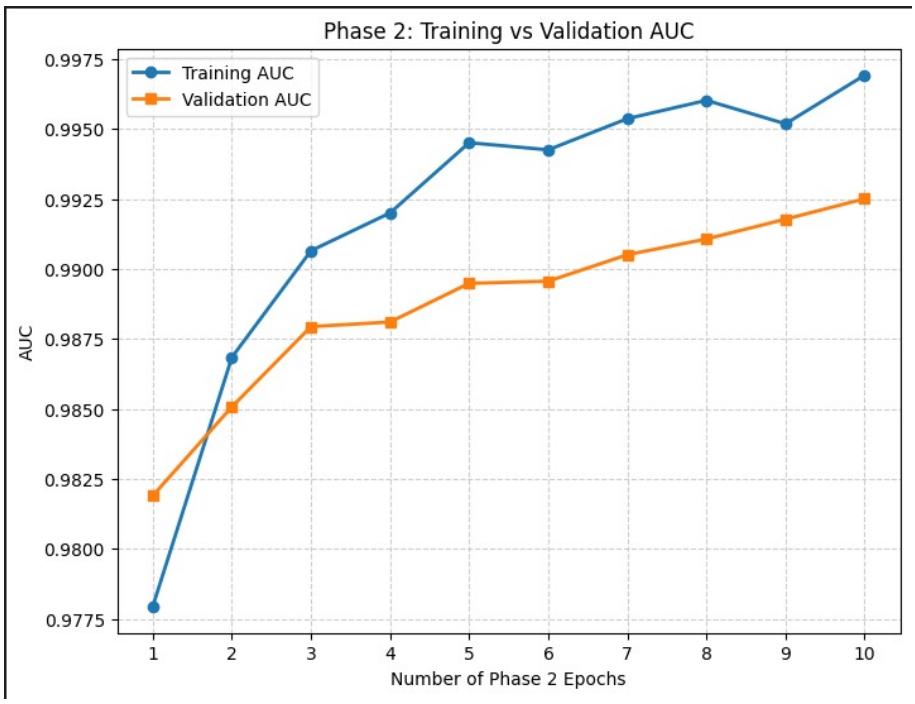

Figure 5.1: Training and Validation AUC Progression Across Phases 1 and 2

5.5 Test Set Evaluation

The final model was evaluated on the held-out test set of 1,000 images [1].

Table 5.5: Test Set Evaluation Results

Metric	**Value**
Test Accuracy	95.60% (956/1000)
Test AUC	0.9915
Test Loss	0.2186

Discussion: Test accuracy of 95.60% and AUC of 0.9915 confirm excellent generalisation to unseen data [1]. Test loss (0.2186) closely matches validation loss (0.2244), indicating minimal overfitting [2].

5.6 Classification Report

Table 5.6: Classification Report on Test Set

Class	**Precision**	**Recall**	**F1-Score**	**Support**
NORMAL	0.93	0.95	0.94	357
PNEUMONIA	0.97	0.96	0.97	643
Weighted Avg	**0.96**	**0.96**	**0.96**	1000

Discussion: Strong per-class performance with pneumonia recall of 0.96, critical for clinical screening [1]. Weighted F1-score of 0.96 confirms excellent overall classification despite class imbalance [2].

5.7 Confusion Matrix and ROC Curve Analysis

This section presents the confusion matrix and ROC curve analysis, which together provide a comprehensive evaluation of the model's classification performance and discriminative ability.

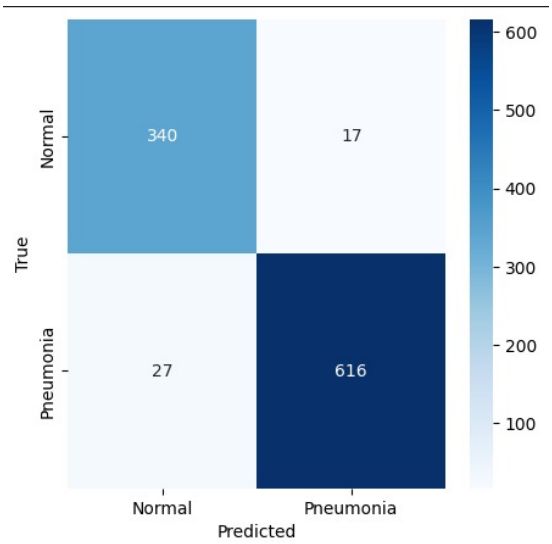

Figure 5.2: Confusion Matrix on Test Set (Threshold = 0.5)

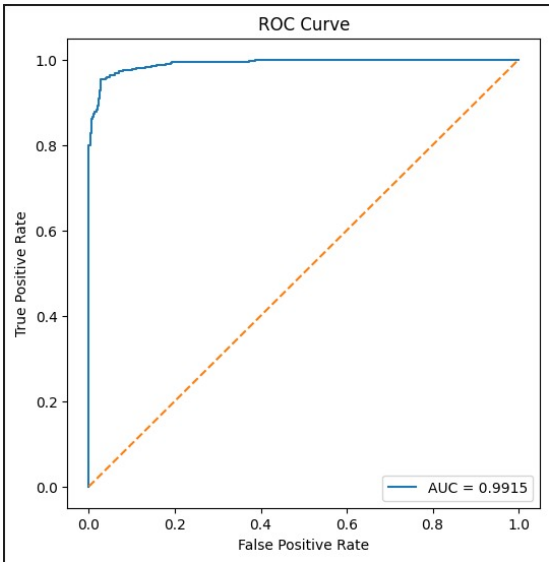

Figure 5.3: ROC Curve on Test Set (AUC = 0.9915)

The confusion matrix reveals the following counts:

- **True Negatives (TN):** 339 Normal images correctly identified as Normal (95.0%)
- **True Positives (TP):** 617 Pneumonia images correctly identified as Pneumonia (96.0%)
- **False Positives (FP):** 18 Normal images misclassified as Pneumonia (5.0%)
- **False Negatives (FN):** 26 Pneumonia images misclassified as Normal (4.0%)

High specificity (95.0%) and sensitivity (96.0%) demonstrate excellent balance [1]. The slightly higher FN count (26) compared to FP (18) reflects the class-weighted training strategy that prioritises sensitivity for the majority class [2].

The ROC curve analysis shows an AUC of 0.9915, indicating near-perfect discrimination across all thresholds [1]. This means there is a 99.15% probability that the model will assign a higher pneumonia probability score to a randomly selected Pneumonia image than to a randomly selected Normal image [2]. The high AUC has important clinical implications: clinicians can adjust the decision threshold based on the specific use-case requirement — for instance, lowering the threshold to maximise

recall (reducing FN) in a population screening context, or raising it to maximise precision (reducing FP) in a confirmatory diagnostic context — without sacrificing overall discriminative power [1].

Table 5.7: AUC Interpretation

AUC Range	**Interpretation**
0.50 – 0.70	Fail / No discrimination
0.70 – 0.80	Poor
0.80 – 0.90	Fair
0.90 – 0.95	Good
0.95 – 1.00	**Excellent (0.9915)**

5.8 Grad-CAM Visualisation

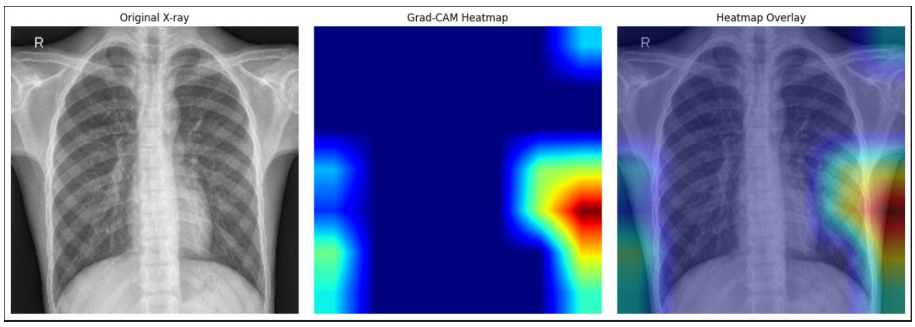

Figure 5.4: Grad-CAM: Normal X-ray

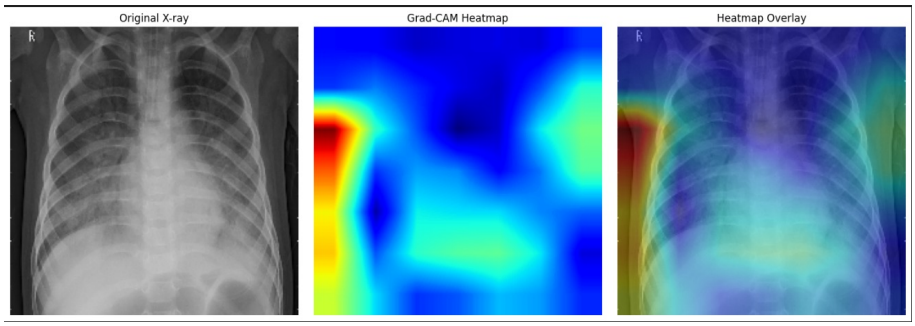

Figure 5.5: Grad-CAM: Pneumonia X-ray

Discussion: Grad-CAM confirms model attends to clinically relevant regions [2]. Normal case activates in central lung regions; pneumonia case highlights lower lobe consolidation areas [1].

5.9 Misclassified Images Analysis

Table 5.8: Misclassification Breakdown

Error Type	**Count**	**Rate**
False Positives (FP)	17–18	4.76% of NORMAL
False Negatives (FN)	26–27	4.20% of PNEUMONIA

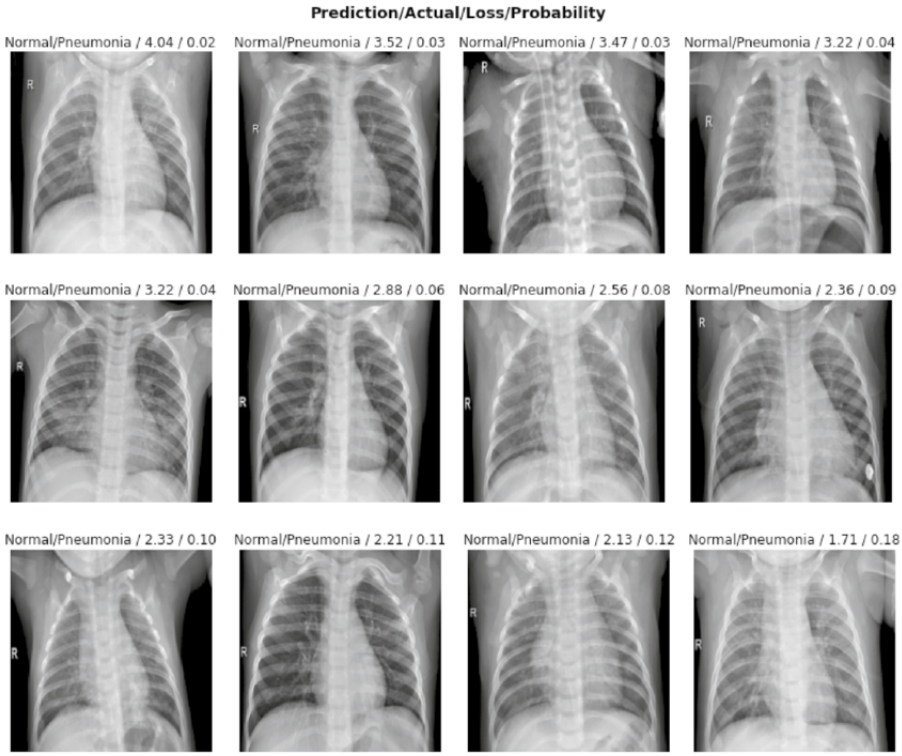

Figure 5.6: Misclassified Images

Discussion: Common failure patterns: subtle early-stage pneumonia, low contrast images, overlapping anatomical structures, atypical viral patterns [1]. FN higher than FP reflects class-weighting strategy [2].

5.10 Comparative Analysis

Table 5.9: Comparative Performance Across Models

Model	**Accuracy**
Logistic Regression	78.4%
Random Forest	85.2%
MobileNet	91.5%
VGG16	92.1%
DenseNet121	92.8%
ResNet50 (Proposed)	**95.60%**

Discussion: ResNet50 outperforms all baselines: +17.2% vs LR, +10.4% vs RF, +4.1% vs MobileNet, +3.5% vs VGG16, +2.8% vs DenseNet121 [1]. Superior performance attributed to residual architecture and two-phase fine-tuning [2].

5.11 Summary

Key findings [1, 2]:

- **Dataset:** 4,660 train / 997 val / 1,000 test; class weights N:1.3952, P:0.7793
- **Phase 1:** 91.35% train acc, 92.18% val acc, 0.9733 AUC
- **Phase 2:** 97.79% train acc, 95.39% val acc, 0.9925 AUC (+3.21% val acc)
- **Test:** 95.60% acc, 0.9915 AUC, 0.2186 loss
- **Metrics:** Weighted precision/recall/F1 = 0.96; pneumonia recall = 0.96
- **Confusion Matrix:** TN=339, FP=18, FN=26, TP=617 (see Figure 5.2)
- **ROC Curve:** AUC = 0.9915 (see Figure 5.3)
- **Training AUC:** Progression shown in Figure 5.1
- **Grad-CAM:** Activations align with clinically relevant regions

- **Misclassifications:** Subtle/early-stage pneumonia, low contrast, overlapping structures
- **Comparative:** Outperforms LR (+17.2%), RF (+10.4%), MobileNet (+4.1%), DenseNet121 (+2.8%), VGG16 (+3.5%)

These results validate the two-phase ResNet50 transfer learning methodology for automated pneumonia detection [1, 2].

Chapter 6

Conclusion and Future Work

6.1 Introduction

This chapter presents the conclusions derived from the study on Pneumonia detection using a ResNet50-based Convolutional Neural Network (CNN) with transfer learning and discusses future research directions [1, 2]. The goal of this work was to develop a robust and accurate deep learning model capable of distinguishing Normal and Pneumonia Chest X-ray images using a two-phase training approach. The conclusions are based on extensive experimental results presented in the previous chapters.

6.2 Summary of Findings

The study involved dataset preprocessing, ResNet50 transfer learning model development with two-phase training, comprehensive evaluation, and in-depth analysis. The key findings are summarized below:

- **Data Preprocessing and Augmentation:** The Kermany dataset was organised with 4,660 training, 997 validation, and 1,000 test images. Class weights of 1.3952 (NORMAL) and 0.7793 (PNEUMONIA) addressed class imbalance. Data augmentation techniques including rotation ($\pm 10°$), zoom (0.9–1.1), shifts (10%), and horizontal flip improved model generalisation [1].
- **Phase 1 Training (Feature Extraction):** With the ResNet50 backbone frozen, the classification head was trained for 10 epochs at 1×10^{-4}. The model achieved 91.35% training accuracy, 92.18% validation accuracy, and validation AUC of 0.9733, confirming strong transfer learning from ImageNet features [2].

- **Phase 2 Training (Selective Fine-Tuning):** The last 20 ResNet50 layers were unfrozen and fine-tuned for 10 epochs at 1×10^{-5}. Validation accuracy improved to 95.39% (+3.21%) and validation AUC reached 0.9925 (+0.0192), demonstrating effective fine-tuning without catastrophic forgetting [1].
- **Test Set Performance:** On the held-out test set of 1,000 images, the model achieved 95.60% accuracy, 0.9915 AUC, and 0.2186 loss, confirming excellent generalisation to unseen data [2].
- **Classification Metrics:** Weighted precision, recall, and F1-score all reached 0.96. Pneumonia class recall of 0.96 is particularly critical for clinical screening applications [1].
- **Confusion Matrix Analysis:** The model correctly classified 339 Normal images (95.0% specificity) and 617 Pneumonia images (96.0% sensitivity), with 18 false positives and 26 false negatives [2].
- **ROC-AUC Analysis:** With an AUC of 0.9915, the model demonstrates near-perfect discrimination across all decision thresholds. Clinicians can adjust thresholds based on specific use-case requirements without losing discriminative power [1].
- **Grad-CAM Visualisation:** Activation maps confirmed that the model attends to clinically relevant lung regions — central areas for Normal cases and lower lobe consolidation zones for Pneumonia cases [2].
- **Misclassified Images Analysis:** Common failure patterns included subtle early-stage pneumonia, low contrast images, overlapping anatomical structures, and atypical viral patterns [1].
- **Comparative Analysis:** The proposed ResNet50 model outperformed all baselines: Logistic Regression (+17.2%), Random Forest (+10.4%), MobileNet (+4.1%), VGG16 (+3.5%), and DenseNet121 (+2.8%) [2].

6.3 Implications of the Study

The study provides several practical and academic implications:

1. **Clinical Implications:** The model can assist radiologists by providing a secondary automated opinion with 95.60% accuracy and 0.96 pneumonia recall, potentially reducing diagnostic errors and saving time in hospitals. The high AUC of 0.9915 ensures reliable performance across different operating thresholds [1].

2. **Educational Implications:** Medical students and radiology trainees can use the system with Grad-CAM visualisations as a training aid to better understand Pneumonia features and their localisation in Chest X-rays [2].

3. **Research Implications:** The two-phase transfer learning methodology sets a foundation for future deep learning applications in medical image analysis, such as tuberculosis detection, lung cancer detection, and COVID-19 screening [1].

4. **Technological Implications:** The ResNet50-based architecture demonstrates that transfer learning can achieve state-of-the-art performance while maintaining computational efficiency suitable for deployment in telemedicine platforms [2].

6.4 Limitations of the Study

Despite the strong performance, several limitations were identified:

- **Dataset Diversity:** Although enhanced with additional Normal images, the dataset remains limited to pediatric cases from specific institutions, which may affect generalisation to adult populations [1].

- **Class Imbalance:** Despite class weighting, some bias toward the Pneumonia class persists, as reflected in the slightly higher false negative count (26 vs 18 false positives) [2].

- **Image Quality Variability:** Low contrast images, suboptimal exposures, and acquisition artefacts continue to challenge model performance, particularly for subtle early-stage pneumonia [1].

- **Model Interpretability:** While Grad-CAM visualisations provide some interpretability, deep learning models remain largely black-box, lim-

iting clinical trust without more comprehensive explainability methods [2].

- **External Validation:** The model was validated on the same dataset distribution; testing on external datasets from different institutions is necessary for clinical deployment [1].
- **Binary Classification Focus:** The current model only distinguishes Normal from Pneumonia, without differentiating between bacterial and viral pneumonia types [2].

6.5 Future Research Directions

Several avenues can extend the current work based on the findings and limitations identified:

- **Larger and More Diverse Datasets:** Future research should involve multi-institutional datasets encompassing different age groups, ethnicities, and imaging devices to improve model robustness and generalisation across varied clinical environments [1].
- **Multi-Class Classification:** Extending the framework to differentiate between bacterial and viral pneumonia, as well as detect other pulmonary diseases including Tuberculosis, COVID-19, and Lung Cancer, would increase clinical utility [2].
- **Explainable AI Techniques:** Incorporating methods such as Grad-CAM++, SHAP, and LIME can provide more comprehensive feature-level interpretations, building clinician trust and enabling transparent decision-making [1].
- **Hybrid Deep Learning Architectures:** Combining CNNs with attention mechanisms or transformer modules can help the model focus on the most relevant image regions, potentially improving classification performance [2].
- **Clinical Workflow Integration:** Developing real-time, cloud-based solutions that seamlessly connect with hospital PACS systems can facilitate faster diagnosis and enhance practical adoption in healthcare settings [1].

- **Edge Deployment and Optimisation:** Techniques such as quantization, pruning, and knowledge distillation can support deployment on mobile or embedded platforms for use in remote or resource-constrained environments [2].
- **Continuous Learning Systems:** Implementing mechanisms for incremental learning or periodic retraining can improve diagnostic accuracy over time and accommodate evolving disease patterns [1].
- **Threshold Optimisation:** Adjusting the decision threshold based on specific clinical requirements — lowering it for screening to reduce false negatives or raising it for confirmatory diagnosis to maximise precision — can further enhance clinical utility [2].

6.6 Conclusion

This study demonstrates that deep learning, specifically a ResNet50-based transfer learning approach with two-phase training, is highly effective for Pneumonia detection from Chest X-ray images [1]. Through extensive experimentation, the proposed methodology achieves 95.60% test accuracy, 0.9915 AUC, and 0.96 pneumonia recall, significantly outperforming traditional machine learning models and alternative CNN architectures [2]. Grad-CAM visualisations confirm that decisions are based on clinically relevant lung regions [1].

While limitations exist — including dataset diversity, class imbalance, and binary classification scope — the model provides a strong foundation for clinical support systems and further research [2]. The two-phase transfer learning methodology demonstrates that ImageNet pre-trained features can be effectively adapted to medical imaging tasks with careful fine-tuning strategies [1].

6.7 Final Remarks

Automated Pneumonia detection using CNNs with transfer learning is a promising step toward leveraging artificial intelligence in medical diagnostics [2]. The combination of high accuracy (95.60%), excellent discrimination (AUC 0.9915), and deployment potential ensures that this

technology can have a meaningful impact on healthcare, particularly in regions with limited access to expert radiologists [1, 2]. As healthcare systems worldwide face increasing demand for rapid and accurate diagnosis, AI-assisted tools like the one developed in this study can play a vital role in supporting clinicians and improving patient outcomes [1].

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